
SECTION 1 : JavaScript Foundations

Useful JavaScript Interview Resources

-  **50 Must-Know JavaScript Interview Questions**
<https://www.greatfrontend.com/blog/50-must-know-javascript-interview-questions-by-ex-interviewers>
-  **JavaScript Interview Questions (GitHub)**
<https://github.com/sudheerj/javascript-interview-questions?tab=readme-ov-file#how-do-you-change-the-style-of-a-html-element>

1) Lexical Environment in JavaScript

A **lexical environment** in JavaScript is a data structure that stores variables and functions defined in the current scope, along with references to all outer scopes. It is also known as the **lexical scope**.

The lexical environment is used to resolve variable names. When the JavaScript interpreter encounters a variable name, it first searches for the variable in the lexical environment of the **current scope**.

If the variable is not found there, the interpreter searches the lexical environment of the **outer scope**, and continues this process until it reaches the **global scope**.

If the variable is not found anywhere, JavaScript throws a **ReferenceError**.

How JavaScript Resolves Variables (Senior-Level Explanation)

When you reference a variable:

1. JS looks in the **current Environment Record**
2. If not found → **Outer Environment**
3. Continues up the chain (**scope chain**)
4. If still not found → **ReferenceError**

! Interview Trick

Lexical ≠ Runtime

Lexical scope is determined **when code is written**, *not when it runs*.

Example

```
function outer() {  
  let x = 10; // stored in outer's environment  
  
  function inner() {  
    console.log(x); // JS finds x in outer's lexical environment  
  }  
  
  return inner;  
}
```

2) Execution Context in JavaScript

An **execution context** in JavaScript is the abstract environment where code is evaluated and executed. It determines which variables, functions, and objects are accessible at any moment and is managed by the JavaScript engine.

Types of Execution Contexts

1. Global Execution Context (GEC)

- The default/base context where all code not inside a function runs.
- Only **one GEC** exists for an entire JavaScript program.
- In a browser, it:
 - Creates the **window** object.
 - Sets **this** to the **window**.

2. Function Execution Context (FEC)

- Created each time a function is **invoked**.
- Every function call gets its **own execution context**.
- Can access its outer scope, but outer scopes cannot access inner scopes.

3. Eval Execution Context

- Created when code inside **eval()** executes.
 - Rarely used due to **security** and **performance** concerns.
-

Execution Stack (Call Stack)

JavaScript manages execution contexts using the **call stack**, which operates on **LIFO (Last-In, First-Out)**:

- When the script loads → GEC is created and pushed onto the bottom of the stack.
- When a function is called → a new FEC is created and pushed to the top.
- JS always executes the context **on top** of the stack.
- After function execution → its FEC is popped off.

- Program ends when the GEC is popped off.

Phases of Execution Context Creation

Each execution context is created in **two phases**:

1. Creation Phase (Memory Allocation Phase)

During this phase, the JS engine scans the code and prepares memory:

- **Variable/Lexical Environment is created**
 - Memory allocated for variables and functions.
 - **var** → initialized with **undefined**
 - **let** & **const** → uninitialized (inside the **Temporal Dead Zone**)
 - Function declarations → stored entirely in memory.
- **Scope Chain is established**
 - Defines access from inner → outer scopes.
- **this value is determined**

2. Execution Phase

JavaScript executes the code:

- Variables get their **actual values**.
- Functions are executed.
- Each function call creates a **new FEC** and adds it to the call stack.

3) Call Stack & Memory Heap

The JavaScript engine handles many tasks for us, but its two most important jobs are:

1. **Storing and managing data** (variables, objects, functions, etc.)
2. **Keeping track of the order in which code runs**

To accomplish this, JavaScript uses two core components:

Memory Heap

A large, free-form storage area where JavaScript **allocates and manages data**.

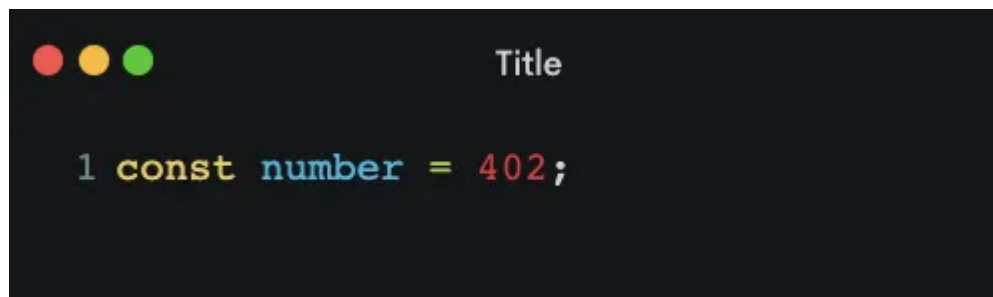
This is where variables, objects, and functions live in memory.

Call Stack

A structure that helps JavaScript **track the execution of code line by line**.

It tells the engine *where it is* in the program and *what to run next*.

Together, the **Memory Heap** stores information, and the **Call Stack** manages the flow of execution.

A code editor window with a dark background. At the top left are three colored circles (red, yellow, green). At the top right is the word "Title". The code is:

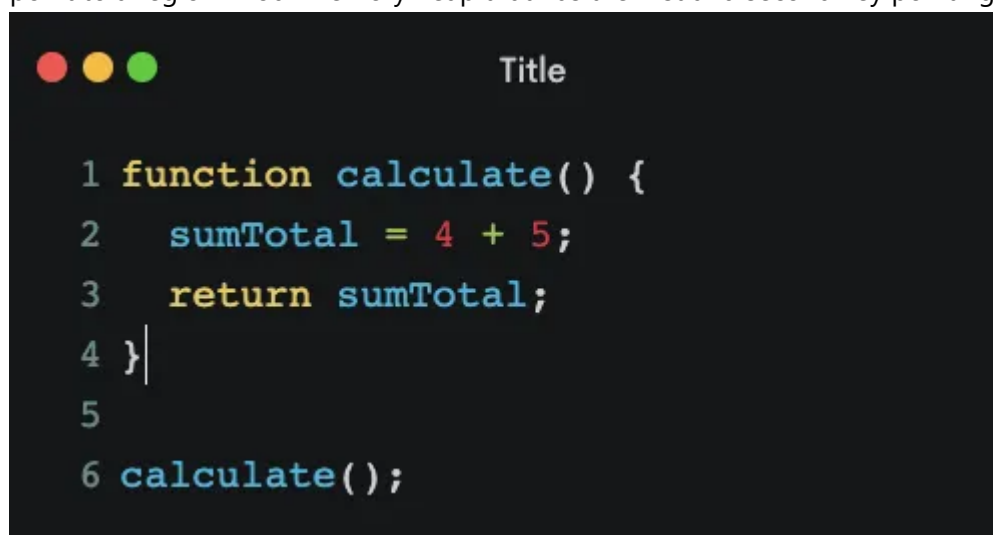
```
1 const number = 402;
```

The above code is saying please allocate memory for the number variable and have it point to the value 402 in our memory heap.

A code editor window with a dark background. At the top left are three colored circles (red, yellow, green). At the top right is the word "Title". The code is:

```
1 const pets = {  
2   first: 'cat',  
3   second: 'dog'  
4 }
```

Here we are telling our engine to allocate memory for the pets object and its values. So anytime I call the pets object, it's going to point to a region in our memory heap that has the first and second key pointing to cat and dog.

A code editor window with a dark background. At the top left are three colored circles (red, yellow, green). At the top right is the word "Title". The code is:

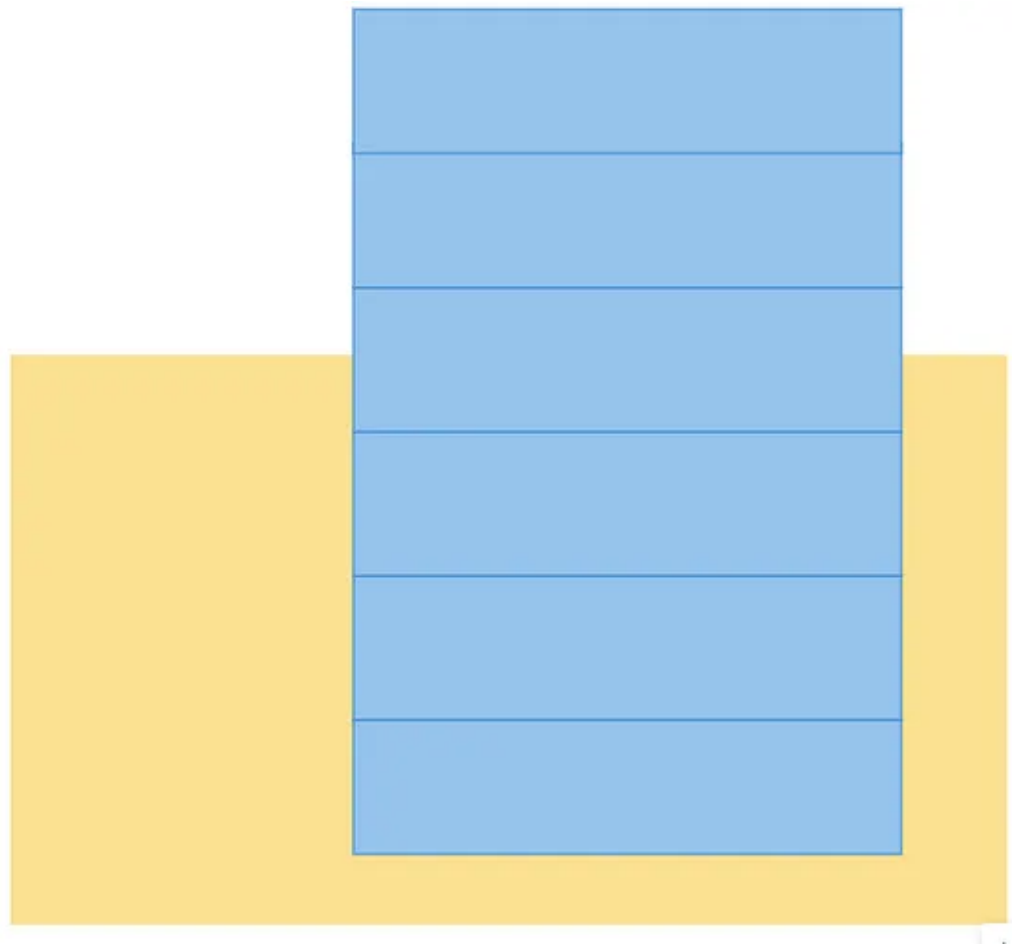
```
1 function calculate() {  
2   sumTotal = 4 + 5;  
3   return sumTotal;  
4 }  
5  
6 calculate();
```

The function above is going to be allocated memory so that anytime we call calculate(), it just looks it up in memory and runs this piece of code.

Every time we run a function we use a call stack. We can think of a call stack as a region in memory that operates in a first in last out mode. So here, it will add the calculate() function on top of the stack. And after we finish running it, it's going to remove it.

Stack Overflow

Stack overflow happens when we call functions nested inside each, other over and over again. If we just keep adding functions to the stack without popping them off, we will have a stack overflow.



We can create a stack overflow very easily with recursion

⚠ Common Interview Question

Q: Why do we get "Maximum call stack size exceeded"?

A: Infinite recursion or excessive nesting fills the stack.

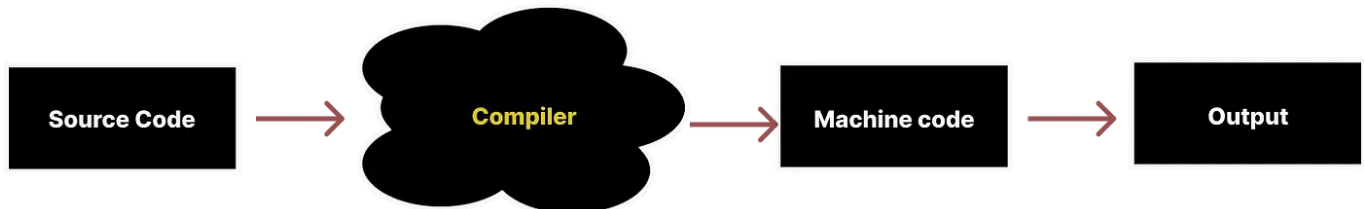
```
1 function inception(){  
2   inception()  
3 }  
4  
5 inception()
```

4) Interpreter vs Compiler vs JIT Compiler

When working with programming languages, it's important to understand **how code gets executed**. There are three major approaches: **Interpreters**, **Compilers**, and **JIT (Just-In-Time) Compilers**. Each method converts high-level code into machine code differently.

Compiler

The source code is converted into machine code **once** and then gets executed.



Pros

- If we have a loop that runs many times (e.g., 40 iterations), the code does **not** need to be translated repeatedly.
This saves a significant amount of time.
- The converted code is generally **more efficient** because the compiler has more opportunity to optimize.

Cons

- It takes more time to start the program because the compiler must first translate the entire source code.

Interpreter

Interpreters are quick. There is no compilation step before execution—they translate the **first line** and immediately execute it.



Pros

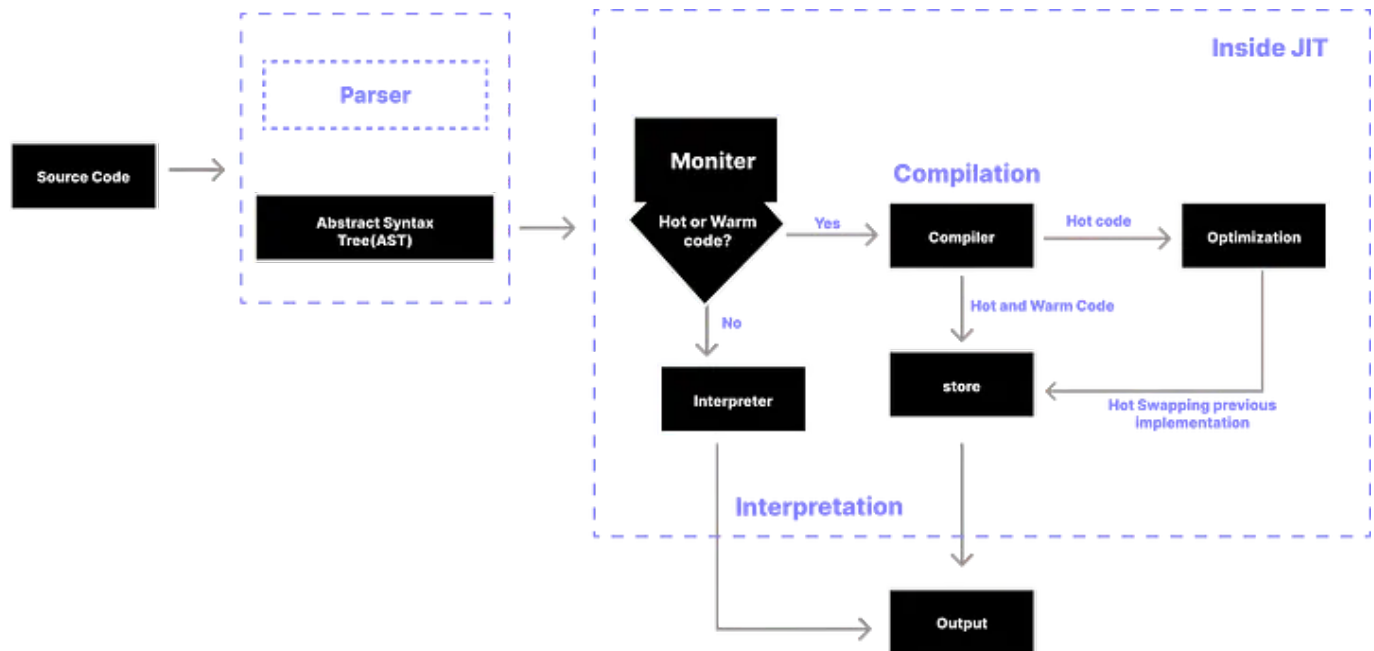
- **Fast start-up times** are a key characteristic of interpreters.
This is why early web browsers used JavaScript interpreters.

Cons

- When running the same code multiple times (e.g., inside a loop), the interpreter must **translate the same code repeatedly**, slowing execution.
- The code is generally **less efficient** than compiled code because there is less opportunity for optimization.

JIT (Just-In-Time) Compiler

In a JIT compiler, we have a component called a **monitor** (or **profiler**) that watches the code as it runs and performs several tasks:



1. **Identifies hot or warm parts of the code**
(e.g., repetitive or frequently executed sections).
2. **Transforms those components into machine code during runtime.**
3. **Optimizes the generated machine code.**
4. **Hot-swaps** the previous implementation with the optimized version.

In short, a **Just-In-Time compiler** is a combination of both an **interpreter** and a **compiler**.

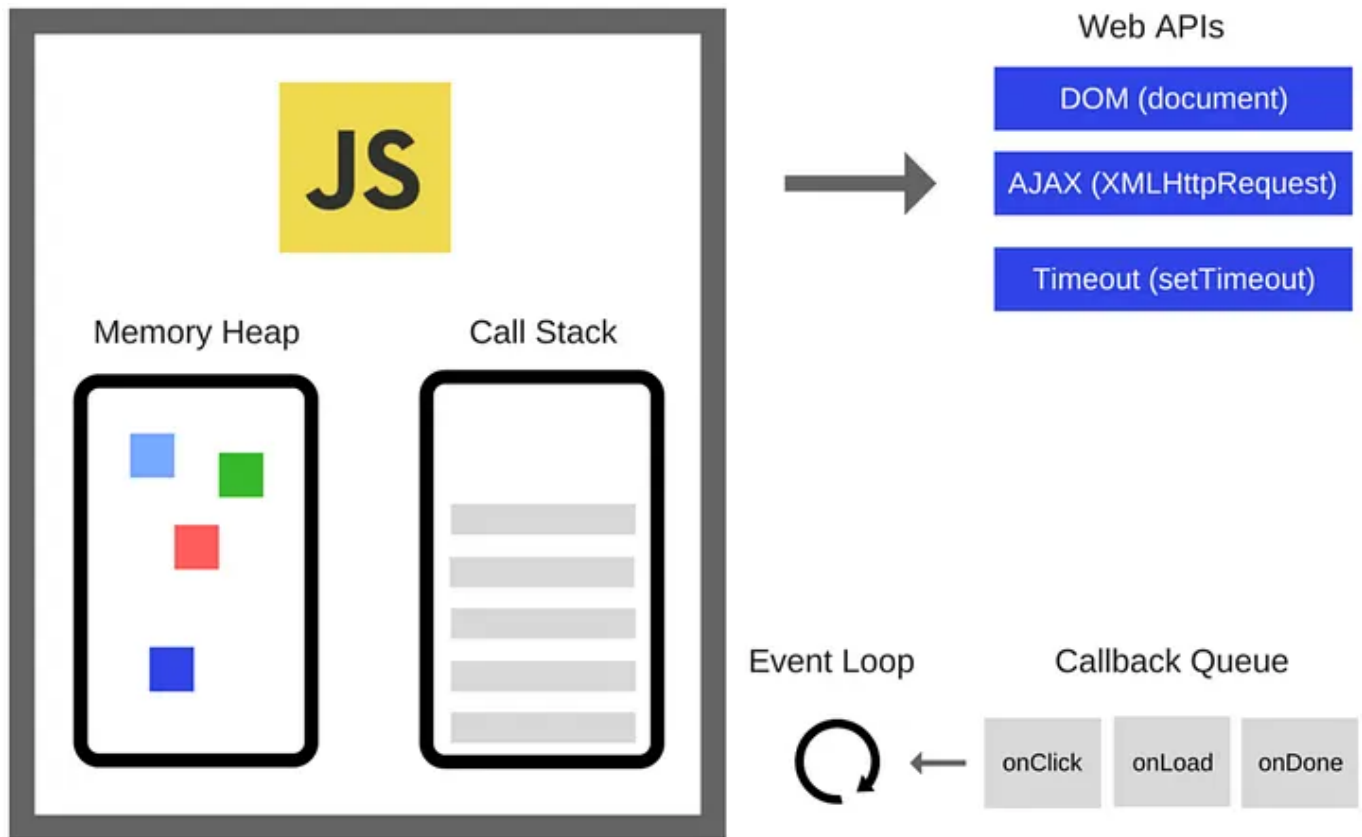
5) JavaScript Event Loop

The event loop is a core concept in JavaScript that enables **non-blocking, asynchronous behavior**.

JavaScript is **single-threaded**, meaning it can run only one piece of code at a time.

The event loop ensures tasks run in the correct order, allowing asynchronous programming to work smoothly.

Components of the Event Loop



1. Call Stack

- Tracks function calls.
- When a function is invoked, it is **pushed** onto the stack.
- When it finishes, it is **popped** off.

2. Web APIs

- Provided by the browser (or Node.js environment).
- Handle asynchronous operations like:
 - `setTimeout`
 - DOM events
 - HTTP requests (e.g., `fetch`)

3. Task Queue (Callback Queue)

- Stores tasks waiting to run **after the call stack is empty**.
- Includes callbacks from:
 - `setTimeout`
 - `setInterval`
 - DOM event listeners

4. Microtask Queue

- A high-priority queue for:
 - Promise callbacks (`.then`, `.catch`, `.finally`)
 - `queueMicrotask`
 - `MutationObserver`

- **Executed before** the regular task queue.

5. Event Loop

- Continuously checks:
 - Is the call stack empty?
 - Are there microtasks to run?
 - Are there macrotasks waiting?
 - Moves tasks from the queues onto the call stack when ready.
-

How It Works (Simple Analogy)

- **Your Main Task (Call Stack):**
JavaScript executes code line-by-line, like following steps in a recipe.
 - **Waiting Tasks (Event Queue):**
Long-running tasks (timers, network requests) are sent to wait in a queue instead of blocking execution.
 - **The Manager (Event Loop):**
Constantly checks:
 - Is the call stack empty?
 - Are there tasks waiting?
 - If yes, move a task from the queue to the stack.
-

Types of Tasks in JavaScript

1. Synchronous Tasks

- Execute immediately on the call stack.
Examples: variable declarations, direct function calls.

2. Microtasks (High Priority)

- Promise callbacks
- `queueMicrotask`
- `MutationObserver`

3. Macrotasks (Lower Priority)

- `setTimeout`
 - `setInterval`
 - DOM events
 - `setImmediate` (Node.js)
-

Order of Execution

1. **Execute all synchronous tasks** on the call stack.

- 2. **Run all microtasks** in the microtask queue.
- 3. **Run one macrotask** from the macrotask queue.
- 4. **Repeat** the cycle.

6) Hoisting in JavaScript

Hoisting in JavaScript is a behavior where **declarations** (for functions, variables, and classes) are conceptually moved to the **top of their scope** during the compilation phase—before the code is executed. This means you can sometimes use a function or variable *before* it appears in the code.

Hoisting Behavior Summary

Declaration Type	Hoisting Behavior	Initial Value if Accessed Early	Error Type if Accessed Too Early
var	Declaration hoisted to top of function/global scope	<code>undefined</code>	None (returns <code>undefined</code>)
let / const	Hoisted to block scope but <i>not initialized</i> (in TDZ)	<code>Uninitialized</code>	<code>ReferenceError</code>
function (declaration)	Name and full function body hoisted	Entire function definition	None (callable before definition)
function (expression)	Only variable name hoisted; assignment not hoisted	<code>undefined</code> (var), uninitialized (let/const)	<code>TypeError</code> (var), <code>ReferenceError</code> (let/const)
class	Hoisted but not initialized (similar to let/const, in TDZ)	<code>Uninitialized</code>	<code>ReferenceError</code>

Examples

1. `var` Hoisting

Accessing a `var` variable before declaration results in `undefined`:

```
console.log(myVar); // Output: undefined
var myVar = "Hello World";
```

The JavaScript engine interprets it like:

```
var myVar; // Declaration hoisted and initialized with undefined
console.log(myVar); // Output: undefined
myVar = "Hello World"; // Assignment stays in place
```

2. **let** and **const** Hoisting (Temporal Dead Zone)

Variables declared with **let** or **const** are hoisted but remain uninitialized, causing a `ReferenceError` if accessed too early:

```
console.log(myLet); // ReferenceError: Cannot access 'myLet' before initialization
let myLet = "Hello World";
```

3. **Function Declaration** Hoisting

Function declarations can be called before they appear in the code:

```
sayHello(); // Output: "Hello there!"

function sayHello() {
  console.log("Hello there!");
}
```

7) Execution Context / Call Stack

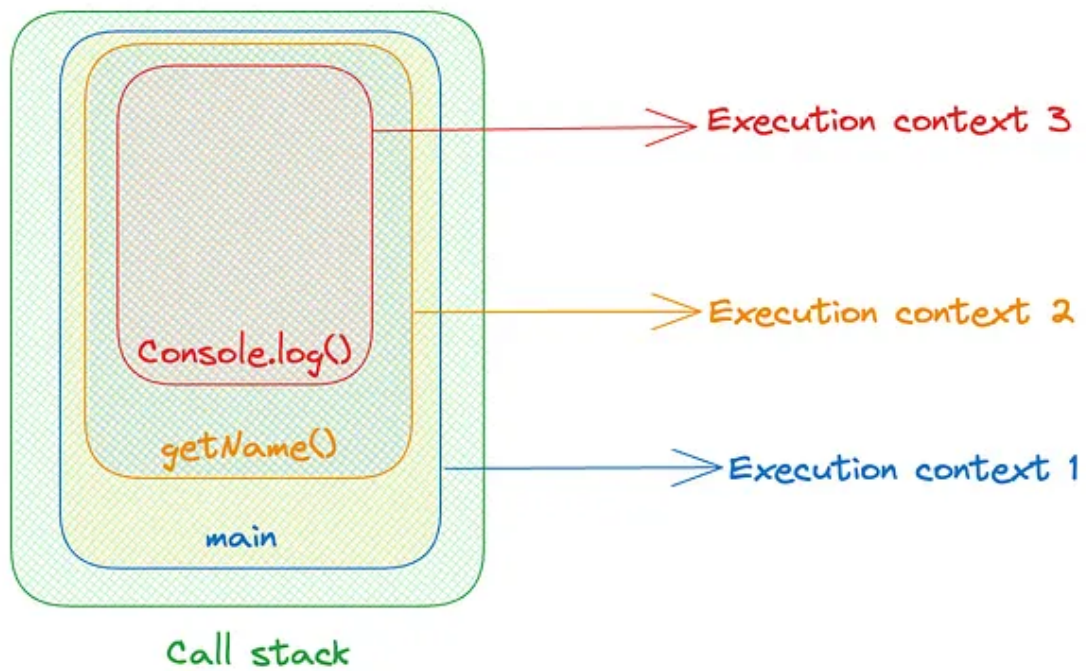
The **execution context** defines the environment in which JavaScript code is executed.

Key points:

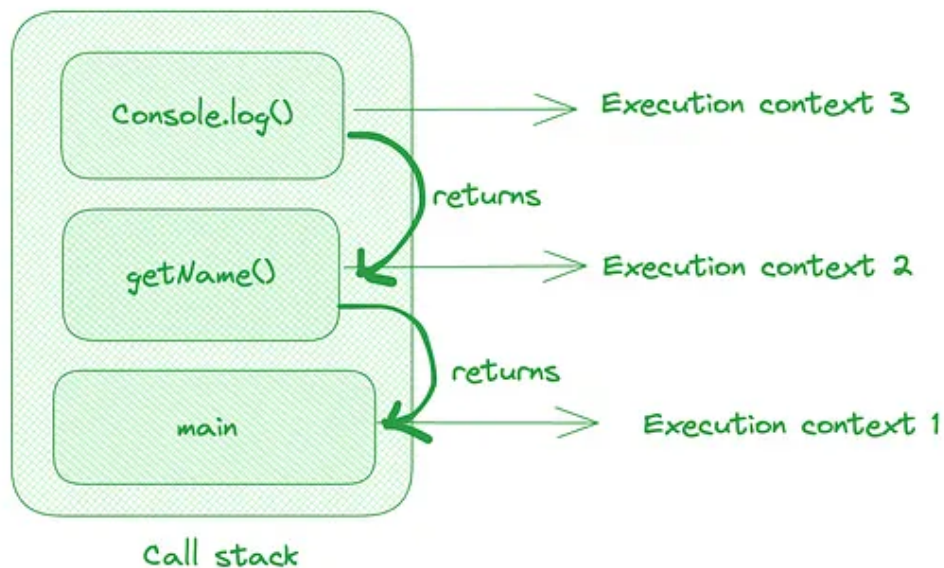
- Every time a function is called, JavaScript creates a **new execution context** for that function.
- These execution contexts are managed using the **call stack**.
- Nested or inner function calls are placed **on top of the stack**.
- When a function finishes execution, it is **popped off** the stack.

Example

```
function getName() {
  console.log("Rakim Cornwall");
}
```



In other words, the inner most function is loaded on the top of the stack and is popped out first. Once the inner most function returns the subsequent parent function on the stack gets executed, This recursively continues until the stack is empty.



Execution Context in JavaScript

An **execution context** is the environment in which JavaScript code is executed. It contains information about:

- The **current scope**

- The **variables** accessible in that scope
- The **functions** that can be accessed

Each time a function is called, JavaScript creates a **new execution context**.

This context exists only while the function runs and is destroyed when the function returns.

Types of Execution Contexts

1. Global Execution Context

- Created when the JavaScript engine starts.
- Represents the global scope.
- Contains global variables, functions, and the global object (`window` in browsers, `global` in Node.js).

2. Function Execution Context

- Created **each time a function is called**.
 - Contains:
 - The function's **scope**
 - The function's **local variables**
 - Any **inner functions**
 - Arguments passed to the function
-

How Execution Context Works

1. When a function is called, a **new execution context** is created.
 2. This execution context is **pushed onto the call stack**.
 3. JavaScript executes the code inside that context.
 4. When the function finishes, its execution context is **popped off the stack**.
 5. JavaScript returns to the previous execution context.
-

The Call Stack

The call stack keeps track of all active execution contexts.

It ensures JavaScript always knows *where it is* during program execution.

- The **top of the stack** represents the currently running function.
 - When nested functions are called, each one is added **on top of the stack**.
 - When they finish, they are removed one by one.
-

Example

```
function getName() {  
  console.log("Rakim Cornwall");  
}
```

```
getName();
```

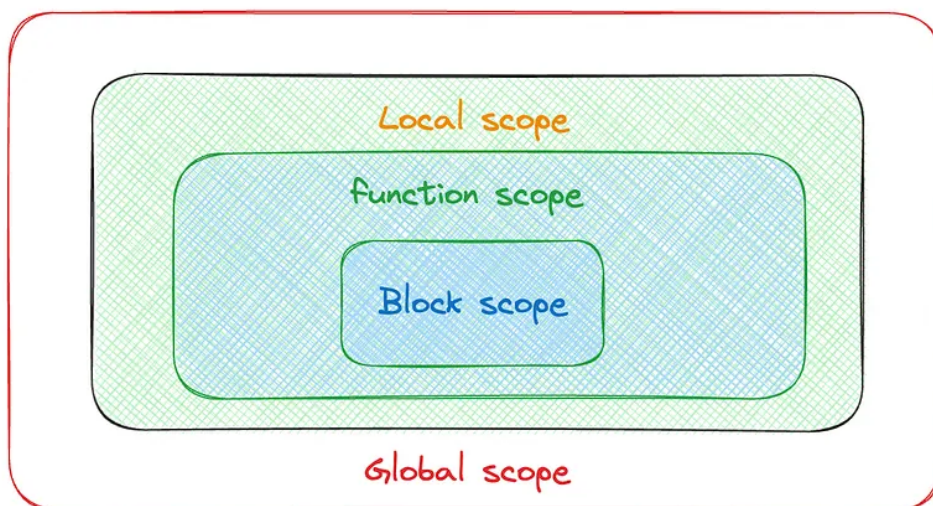
8) Scope

Scope refers to the visibility of variables, functions, and objects within a particular part of the code during runtime.

Types of Scope

Scope can be broadly divided into two parts:

- **Global Scope**
- **Local Scope**



Global Scope

- Variables declared in the global scope can be accessed from anywhere inside the code.
- Anything declared outside a function using **var** automatically becomes part of the global scope.
- Anything declared outside a function using **let** does **not** become part of the global scope because **let** maintains block-level scope.

```
if(true){
  var a = "A is in global scope"
}

if(true){
  let b = "B is block scope"
}

console.log(a)
console.log(b)
```

```
node /tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js
A is in global scope
ERROR!
/tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js:10
console.log(b)
    ^

ReferenceError: b is not defined
    at Object.<anonymous> (/tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js:10:13)
    at Module._compile (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:1256:14)
    at Module._extensions..js (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:1310:10)
    at Module.load (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:1119:32)
    at Module._load (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:960:12)
    at Function.executeUserEntryPoint [as runMain] (node:internal/modules/run_main:81:12)
    at node:internal/main/run_main_module:23:47
Node.js v18.16.1
```

Variable outside function scope acts as global scope.

```
var a = "I am in global scope"; // global scope

test()

function test(){
  if(true){
    console.log(a); // a declared in global scope can be access
                    anywhere
  }
}
```

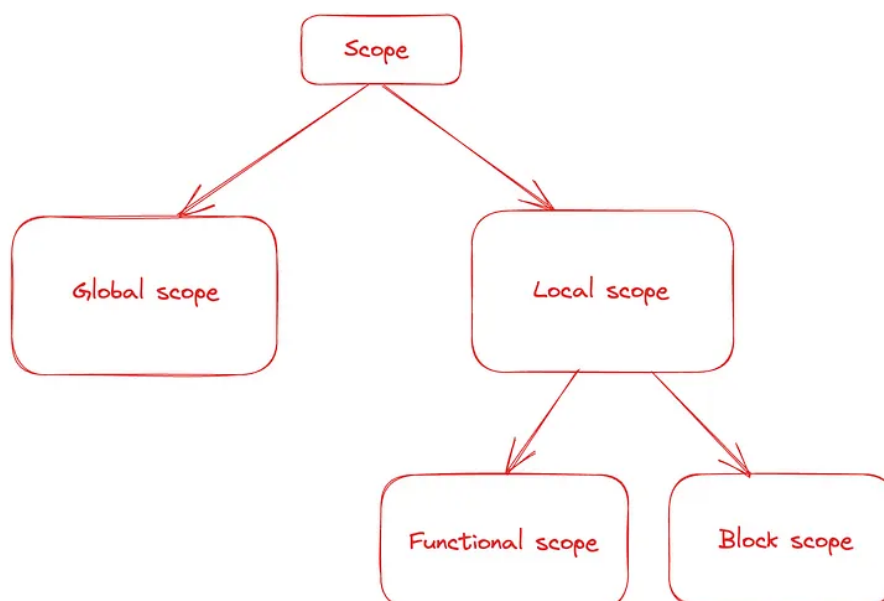
```
node /tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js
I am in global scope
```

Globally declared "a" variable can be access anywhere in the code.

Local Scope

Local scope refers to the visibility or accessibility of variables within a **specific function or block**.

Both **function scope** and **block scope** are types of local scope.



Function Scope

- Anything declared inside a function using **var** is in the function scope.
- Anything inside a block (**if**, **else**, **for**) declared using **var** is still considered part of the **function scope**.
- A **var** variable inside a block is accessible anywhere within the entire function.
- If a variable is declared with VAR even with in a block, it gets declared as function scope.(same is not the case with let and const)

```
function test(){
  // function scope starts
  var a = "I am function scope declared with var"
  let b = "I am function scope declared with let"

  if(true){
    var c = "I am still in function scope as declared with var";
    console.log(a);
    console.log(b);
  }
  console.log(c)
}

test()
```

```
node /tmp/U2N17u30ED.js
I am function scope declared with var
I am function scope declared with let
I am still in function scope as declared with var
```

- If a variable is declared with LET/ CONST within a block scope it will not be accessible outside that block. (let/ cost are block scoped)

```
1- function test(){
2-   // function scope starts
3-   var a = "I am function scope declared with var"
4-   let b = "I am function scope declared with let"
5-
6-   if(true){
7-     var c = "I am still in function scope as declared with var";
8-     let d = "I am declared in If bloack so cannnot be access outside this IF"
9-     console.log(a);
10-    console.log(b);
11-  }
12-  console.log(d)
13- }
14
15 test()
16
17
18
19
20
21
```

```
node /tmp/U2N17u30ED.js
I am function scope declared with var
I am function scope declared with let
ERROR!
/tmp/U2N17u30ED.js:12
  console.log(d)
              ^
ReferenceError: d is not defined
    at test (/tmp/U2N17u30ED.js:12:17)
    at Object.<anonymous> (/tmp/U2N17u30ED.js:15:1)
    at Module._compile (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:1256:14)
    at Module._extensions..js (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:1310:10)
    at Module.load (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:1119:32)
    at Module._load (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:960:12)
    at Function.executeUserEntryPoint [as runMain] (node:internal/modules/run_main:81:12)
    at node:internal/main/run_main_module:23:47

Node.js v18.16.1
```

Block Scope

- Anything inside a block (**if**, **else**, **for**, **switch**) declared using **let** or **const** is in the **block scope**.
- Variables declared with **let** or **const** inside a block cannot be accessed outside that block.
- Their accessibility is confined to the block where they were declared.
- If a variable is declared with LET within a block scope it will not be accessible outside that block.

```
1- function test(){
2-   if(true){
3-     var c = "I am still in function scope as declared with var";
4-     let d = "I am declared in If bloack so cannnot be access outside this IF"
5-     console.log(c);
6-     console.log(d);
7-   }
8- }
9
10 test()
11
12
```

```
node /tmp/U2N17u30ED.js
I am still in function scope as declared with var
I am declared in If bloack so cannnot be access outside this IF
```

c, d can be accessed within test as both are in function scope.

```
function test(){
  if(true){
    var c = "I am still in function scope as declared with var";
    let d = "I am declared in If block so cannot be access outside this IF"
    console.log(c);
    console.log(d);
  }
  console.log(c)
  console.log(d)
}

test()
```

```
node /tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js
I am still in function scope as declared with var
I am declared in If block so cannot be access outside this IF
I am still in function scope as declared with var
ERROR!
/tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js:9
  console.log(d)
  ^
ReferenceError: d is not defined
    at test (/tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js:9:17)
    at Object.<anonymous> (/tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js:12:1)
    at Module._compile (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:1256:14)
    at Module._extensions..js (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:1310:10)
    at Module.load (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:1119:32)
    at Module._load (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:960:12)
    at Function.executeUserEntryPoint [as runMain] (node:internal/modules/run_main:81:12)
    at node:internal/main/run_main_module:23:47

Node.js v18.16.1
```

"d" variable being a let cannot be access outside block statement

var vs const / let

- **var** is function-scoped and accessible throughout the function.
- **let** and **const** are block-scoped and cannot be accessed outside the block where they are declared.
- Use **var** only if you need access outside the block.
- Use **let** and **const** to avoid issues like accidental redeclaration.

```
var a = "I am in global scope"; // global scope

function test(){
  console.log(a); // a declared in global scope can be access anywhere
  var b = "I am in function scope";
  if(true){
    let c = "I am in block scope";
    console.log(b); // b is function scope hence accessible all
    // throughout the function test.
    console.log(c); // c is a block scope hence can be accessed inside
    // the if statement.
  }
  console.log(c) // c is a block scope hence it cannot be accessed
  // outside the if statement.
}

test()
```

```
node /tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js
I am in global scope
I am in function scope
I am in block scope
ERROR!
/tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js:11
  console.log(c)
  ^
ReferenceError: c is not defined
    at test (/tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js:11:17)
    at Object.<anonymous> (/tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js:14:1)
    at Module._compile (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:1256:14)
    at Module._extensions..js (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:1310:10)
    at Module.load (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:1119:32)
    at Module._load (node:internal/modules/cjs/loader:960:12)
    at Function.executeUserEntryPoint [as runMain] (node:internal/modules/run_main:81:12)
    at node:internal/main/run_main_module:23:47

Node.js v18.16.1
```

7) Context ("this")

- "this" can be remembered as: "**Under which object was I declared?**"
- If not declared under any object, the default context is the **global window object**.
- The place where something is declared determines its **this** value.
- To change the value of **this**, you can use **bind**, **call**, or **apply** to bind another object.

Certain scenarios where this will refer to a particular context:

- "this" points to global context: When a function is called standalone the function is in the global context. as all functions by default are registered under the global window object.

```

> function testFunc(){
    console.log(this.givenName)
  }
testFunc()
undefined
< undefined
> window.givenName = "Rakim Cornwall"
< 'Rakim Cornwall'
> testFunc()
Rakim Cornwall
< undefined
>

```

Here testFunc's is declared in global context which means this will point to the global window object. Hence, since givenName is not declared on global window object it returns undefined.

- "this" points to object context: When a function is declared within an object, this would point to that object itself.

```

1 const obj1 = {
2   name: "Rakim Cornwall",
3   testFunc: function(){
4     console.log(this.name) // here this refers to the context where
                           testFunc is declared.
5   }
6 }
7
8 obj1.testFunc()

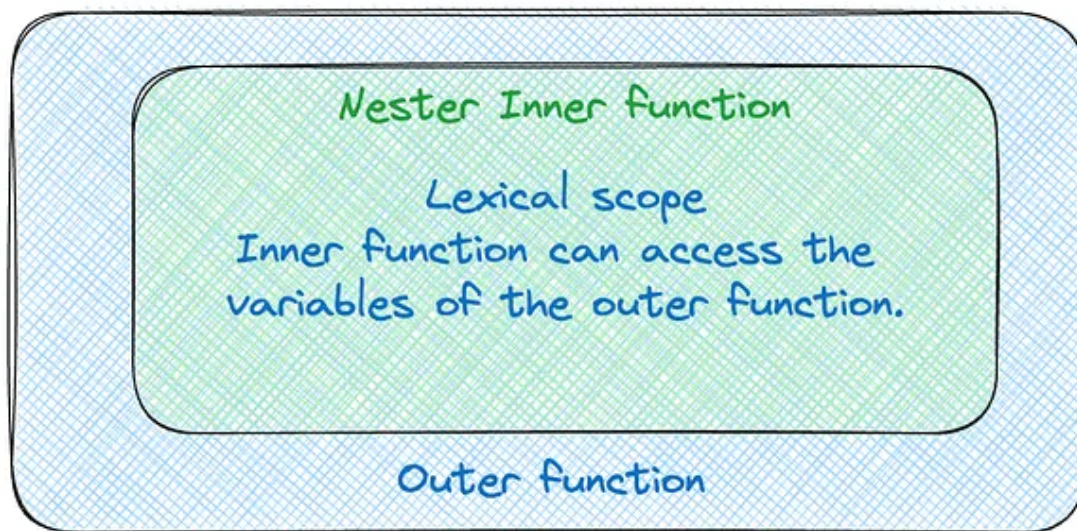
```

node /tmp/U2Ni7u30ED.js
Rakim Cornwall

Here testFunc's is declared in Object context which means this will point to the object obj1. When testFunc is called, for the value of this it will refer to the obj1's context. It will get the value of name hence the name is printed.

8) Lexical scope

When you define a variable or function inside a block or function, they are accessible within that block or function and any nested blocks or functions within it. Lexical scope is closely related to closures. If a function returns another function the nested function can access the variables arguments of the lexically scoped parent functions.



```
function outerFunction(value){  
  var temp = 20;  
  return function(){  
    console.log(value);  
    console.log(temp);  
  }()  
}  
  
outerFunction(10)
```

```
node /tmp/U2WRJq42oN.js  
10  
20
```

9) Shadowing

Variable Shadowing in JavaScript

Variable shadowing occurs when a variable declared within a certain scope (e.g., a function or block) has the **same name** as a variable in an outer scope. The inner variable **overrides** the outer variable within its scope.

```
1  let n = 10; // Global scope  
2  
3  function gfg() {  
4      let n = 20; // Shadows the global 'n' inside this function  
5      console.log(n); // Output: 20  
6  }  
7  
8  gfg();  
9  console.log(n); // Output: 10 (global 'n' remains unchanged)
```

10) Temporal Dead Zone (TDZ)

The **Temporal Dead Zone (TDZ)** is a behavior in JavaScript that occurs when declaring variables using **let** and **const**.

It refers to the period between **entering the scope** and the **actual declaration** of the variable. During this period, the variable **cannot be accessed** and will throw a **ReferenceError** if used.

Examples

```
console.log(myVar); // undefined
var myVar = 5;
console.log(myVar); // 5

console.log(myLet); // ReferenceError: Cannot access 'myLet' before initialization
let myLet = 10;
console.log(myLet); // 10

console.log(myConst); // ReferenceError: Cannot access 'myConst' before initialization
const myConst = 15;
console.log(myConst); // 15
```

SECTION 2: VARIABLES & DATA TYPES

11) Primitive vs Reference Types (Deep Explanation)

JavaScript has **7 primitive types**:

Primitive	Notes
number	floating point, IEEE-754 quirks
string	immutable
boolean	true/false
undefined	variable declared but not assigned
null	intentional empty value
symbol	unique values
bigint	large integers

☑ Important Characteristics of Primitives

- Stored directly in the **stack** (conceptual model)
 - **Immutable** (operations create new values, not modify existing ones)
 - Compared **by value**
-

📌 Reference Types

- objects
- arrays
- functions

Characteristics:

- Stored in the **heap** (dynamic memory)
- Variables hold a **reference/pointer** to the memory location
- Compared **by reference**, not by value

Example:

```
const a = { x: 1 };
const b = { x: 1 };

console.log(a === b); // false (different references)
```

12) Coercion in JavaScript

Coercion is the **automatic type conversion** that occurs in JavaScript when performing operations involving values of different types.

Type conversion means transforming a value from one type to another (e.g., number → string).

JavaScript supports two kinds of type conversion:

- **Implicit Type Conversion (Coercion)** → done automatically by JavaScript.
 - **Explicit Type Conversion (Type Casting)** → done manually by the developer.
-

What is Implicit Type Conversion (Coercion)?

JavaScript is a **weakly typed language**, meaning it allows operations between different types.

When such operations occur, JavaScript attempts to **coerce one value's type** so the operation can still proceed.

Example 1: Number + String

```
const sum = 35 + "hello";

console.log(sum); // "35hello"
console.log(typeof sum); // string
```

Well here, Instead of JavaScript throwing an error, it coerces the type of one value to fit the type of the other value so that the operation can be carried out.

In this case, using the + sign with a number and a string, the number is coerced to a string, then the + sign is used for a concatenation operation.

```
const times = 35 * "hello";

console.log(times);
// NaN
```

Here, we use times * for a number and a string. There's no operation with strings that involves multiplication, so here, the ideal coercion is from string to number (as numbers have compatible operations with multiplication).

But since a string (in this case, "hello") is converted to a number (which is NaN) and that number is multiplied by 35, the final result is NaN.

What is Explicit Type Conversion (Type Casting)?

Explicit type conversion (also known as **type casting**) is when **you**, the developer, intentionally convert a value from one type to another.

This is often done to ensure an operation behaves as expected.

To perform explicit conversions, JavaScript provides **type constructors** such as:

- `String()`
- `Number()`
- `Boolean()`
- `BigInt()`
- `Object()`

Example: Converting a Number to a String

```
const number = 30;

const numberConvert = String(number);

console.log(numberConvert);
// "30"
```

```
console.log(typeof numberConvert);  
// string
```

13) == vs === in JavaScript

In JavaScript, the main difference between `==` and `===` is:

- `==` performs **type coercion** before comparison.
- `===` compares both **value and type** without coercion.

`==` (Loose Equality)

The **loose equality** operator attempts to convert both values to a common type before comparing them.

Characteristics:

- **Type Coercion:** Yes (automatic)
- Can produce surprising or unpredictable results.

Examples:

```
5 == "5"; // true → "5" converted to 5  
true == 1; // true → true converted to 1  
null == undefined; // true  
0 == false; // true → false converted to 0
```

`===` (Strict Equality)

The strict equality operator does not perform type conversion.

Characteristics:

- **Type Coercion:** No
- Compares both value and type

Examples:

```
5 === "5"; // false → number vs string  
true === 1; // false  
null === undefined; // false  
0 === false; // false
```

Summary Table

Operator	Name	Type Coercion	Compares Value & Type?	Example	Result
<code>==</code>	Loose Equality	Yes	No (value only)	<code>5 == "5"</code>	true
<code>===</code>	Strict Equality	No	Yes	<code>5 === "5"</code>	false

14) null, undefined, NaN, Infinity

undefined

Variable is declared but not assigned

- Default function parameter value
- Missing object property
- Missing array element

```
let a;  
console.log(a); // undefined
```

null

null is a primitive value that represents an intentional absence of any object value or an empty value. Programmers explicitly assign null to a variable to indicate that the variable has no value.

```
let user = null;  
  
typeof null → "object"    (historic bug)  
typeof undefined → "undefined"
```

NaN

Meaning: Invalid Number

NaN stands for "Not a Number". It is a special numeric value that represents the result of an invalid or mathematically undefined operation that was intended to produce a number.

```
Number("abc") → NaN  
0 / 0 → NaN
```

Infinity

Infinity is a special numeric value representing a number that is greater than the maximum possible number that the programming environment can handle. It is the mathematical concept of infinity, (∞).

15) Pass-by-value vs Pass-by-reference

✓ JavaScript always passes values, not references

When passing objects → the value is a reference pointer.

Pass by value

Pass by value means when a variable is assigned to another variable, the value stored in the variable is copied into the new variable. They are independent of each other, each occupying its own memory space.

```
let a = 10;
let b = a;

a = 20;

console.log(a); // Outputs: 20
console.log(b); // Outputs: 10

////////////////////////////////////

let num = 10;

function modifyValue(value) {
  value = 20; // Modifies the local copy
}

modifyValue(num);
console.log(num); // Output: 10 (original value is preserved)
```

In this example, we first declare a variable `a` and set it equal to 10. We then declare another variable `b` and set it equal to `a`. At this point, both `a` and `b` are 10. However, when we change the value of `a` to 20, `b` remains 10 because the value was passed by value - meaning the value 10 was copied to `b` when it was declared, and changes to `a` do not affect `b`.

Pass by Reference

While JavaScript is primarily a “pass by value” language, it uses a concept called “pass by reference” when dealing with objects (including arrays and functions).

When an object is created in JavaScript, it is stored in a memory space, and the variable associated with it stores the memory address or reference where the object is stored.

If you assign this object variable to another variable, it does not copy the object. Instead, it copies the reference to the object. Both variables now point to the same memory space, which means changes through one variable are reflected when accessing the object through the other variable.

```
let obj1 = { value: 10 };
let obj2 = obj1;

obj1.value = 20;

console.log(obj1.value); // Outputs: 20
console.log(obj2.value); // Outputs: 20

////////////////////////////////////
let myObj = { value: 10 };

function modifyObject(obj) {
  obj.value = 20; // Mutates the original object
}

modifyObject(myObj);
console.log(myObj.value); // Output: 20 (original object is modified)
```

In this example, `obj1` and `obj2` are both references to the same object. When we change `obj1.value` to 20, the change is reflected in `obj2.value` because both `obj1` and `obj2` point to the same memory space - the object { value: 20 }.

16) Boxing / Autoboxing

In JavaScript, autoboxing is the automatic conversion of a primitive value (like a string, number, or boolean) into a temporary "wrapper" object when you try to access a property or method on it. Unboxing is the reverse process, where a wrapper object is converted back into its primitive value when a primitive is expected

Boxing in JavaScript

Boxing (Auto-Boxing) in JavaScript

In JavaScript, **primitive data types** (like string, number, boolean) are **not objects**, so technically they **should not** have methods or properties.

But they *do*.

For example:

```
var car = "ford";

console.log(car); // "ford"
console.log(car.length); // 4
```

Autoboxing in JavaScript

JavaScript primitives (string, number, boolean, null, undefined, symbol) do not inherently have methods or properties. However, JavaScript's autoboxing feature allows them to behave as if they do

How it works:

- When you try to use a property or method on a primitive value, the JavaScript engine automatically:
- Creates a temporary instance of the corresponding built-in wrapper object (String, Number, or Boolean).
- The method is called on this temporary object. The result is returned, and the temporary object is immediately discarded (garbage collected).

```
const name = "John"; // Primitive string
console.log(name.length); // Autoboxing happens here
console.log(name.toUpperCase()); // Autoboxing happens here
```

Behind the scenes, when `name.toUpperCase()` is called, JavaScript temporarily treats "John" as new `String("John")` to access the `toUpperCase()` method.

Unboxing in JavaScript

Unboxing is the process of converting an object wrapper back to its basic, primitive value. This happens automatically (implicitly) when JavaScript needs a primitive value for an operation, such as in arithmetic operations, comparisons, or type coercion. How it works:

- JavaScript engine calls the internal `ToPrimitive()` abstract operation, which often uses the object's `valueOf()` or `toString()` methods to retrieve the underlying primitive value.

```
const numObj = new Number(5); // A Number object, not a primitive
const sum = numObj + 10; // Unboxing happens here
console.log(sum); // Output: 15
```

17) Pure vs Impure

The primary difference is that a pure function always produces the same output for the same input and has no side effects, whereas an impure function may produce different results or modify external state.

Pure Functions

Pure functions are a core concept in functional programming, known for their predictability and reliability.

- **Predictable Output:** Given the exact same inputs (arguments), a pure function will always return the exact same result, every time.
- **No Side Effects :** They do not modify anything outside their own scope. This means no changing global variables, no DOM manipulation, no console logging, and no making API calls. **-Benefits:** They

are easy to test, debug, and reason about. They also enable performance optimizations like memoization (caching results). Example:

```
// A pure function
function add(a, b) {
  return a + b;
}

console.log(add(2, 3)); // Always outputs 5
```

Impure Functions

Impure functions have the opposite characteristics, allowing for interaction with the outside world, which is necessary for most real-world applications.

- **Unpredictable Output:** The output may change even with the same input arguments, because it might depend on external factors like the current time or a random number.
- **Side Effects:** They interact with or modify the external environment.
- **Use Cases:** Necessary for operations like making network requests (fetch), working with the browser's APIs (e.g., window or document), and modifying application state.

```
// Impure function due to using an external variable
let total = 0;
function addToTotal(value) {
  total += value; // Mutates an external variable (side effect)
  return total;
}

console.log(addToTotal(5)); // First call outputs 5
console.log(addToTotal(5)); // Second call outputs 10 (different output for the
                             same input)

// Impure function due to an unpredictable source
function getRandomNumber() {
  return Math.random(); // Uses an external, unpredictable source
}

console.log(getRandomNumber()); // Different output every time
```

Summary Comparison		
Characteristic 	Pure Function	Impure Function
Output for same input	Always the same	May vary
Side Effects	None	Can have many
Dependencies	Only on its arguments	Can depend on external state/variables
Testability	Easy to test	Harder to test and debug
Examples	<code>Array.map()</code> , <code>Array.reduce()</code>	<code>Math.random()</code> , <code>console.log()</code> , DOM access, API calls

18) Context Binding

Context binding in JavaScript refers to the process of setting the value of the `this` keyword within a function's execution to a specific object. This is crucial because the value of `this` is dynamic and typically depends on how or where a function is called, not where it is defined.

There are four primary ways `this` is bound in JavaScript:

1. **Default (Window/Global) Binding:** When a function is called as a standalone function without any other binding rules applied, `this` refers to the global object (e.g., `window` in a browser). In strict mode, `this` will be `undefined` instead.
2. **Implicit Binding:** When a function is invoked as a method of an object (using dot notation), `this` implicitly binds to the object immediately to the left of the dot at the call site.
3. **Explicit Binding:** You can explicitly force a function to use a specific object as its context using the `call()`, `apply()`, and `bind()` methods.
4. **new Binding:** When a function is used as a constructor with the `new` keyword, JavaScript creates a new object and binds `this` to that newly created instance.

Example 1: Window object

```
// In the browsers, the window object is global  
window.foo = "bar";  
console.log(this.foo === window.foo) // true  
console.log(this === window); // true
```

Example 2: Function context

Most of the time, `this` is bound to whatever context the function is called:

```
// This is window/global scope  
let a = (function() {  
  return this;  
})();  
  
console.log(a === window); // true
```

Example 2: Function context in strict mode

In strict mode, `this` is what it was set to when entering execution context. So in this case `this` becomes undefined.

```
let a = (function() {  
  'use strict';  
  return this;  
})();  
  
console.log(typeof a === 'undefined'); // true
```

So the only way to bind `this` to the surrounding context is by injecting it:

```
let a = (function(ctx) {  
  'use strict';  
  return ctx;  
})(this);  
  
console.log(a === window); // true
```

Example 3: setting `this` with `bind`

`bind` is a very useful method introduced in ES5 for setting `this` to an arbitrary context. However, we all know it's a mystery to many JavaScript users (including myself not long ago).

```
let context = {foo: 'bar'};
let a = (function() {
  return this;
}).bind(context)();

console.log(a === context); // true
```

The arrow function

In ES2015 (or ES6, what's with the naming anyway), the arrow function was introduced. With a function declared using the arrow syntax, the `this` keyword behaves lexically, or binds to whatever execution context is surrounding the function it is in. For instance,

```
// global/window context
let a = (() => {
  return this;
})();

console.log(a === window); // true

class A {
  constructor() {
    this.foo = () => {
      return this;
    };
  }
}

let a = new A();

// this is bound to the class instance
console.log(a.foo() === a); // true
```

Methods for Explicit Context Binding

JavaScript provides built-in methods on the `Function.prototype` to control the context explicitly. [↗](#)

Method ↗	Description	Arguments	Invocation
<code>call()</code>	Immediately invokes the function with a specified <code>this</code> value.	Takes the context object as the first argument, followed by arguments passed individually.	Immediately upon call.
<code>apply()</code>	Immediately invokes the function with a specified <code>this</code> value.	Takes the context object as the first argument, followed by arguments provided as an array .	Immediately upon call.
<code>bind()</code>	Returns a new function with the <code>this</code> value permanently bound to the provided object.	Takes the context object as the first argument, followed by optional arguments passed individually.	Can be invoked later, preserving the context.

19) This

this is a runtime binding created when a function is invoked.

! this is NOT determined by where the function is defined, it is determined by how the function is called.

JavaScript determines the value of `this` using **four binding rules**, evaluated in the following **priority order**:

1. **new binding**
2. **explicit binding**
3. **implicit binding**
4. **default binding**

☑ 1. Default Binding

Non-Strict Mode

```
function show() {  
  console.log(this);  
}  
show(); // window (in browser)  
  
////////// STRICT MODE //////////  
("use strict");  
function show() {
```

```
    console.log(this);  
  }  
  show(); // undefined
```

☑ 2. Implicit Binding

When a function is called as a method of an object:

```
const user = {  
  name: "Alice",  
  greet() {  
    console.log(this.name);  
  },  
};  
  
user.greet(); // Alice  
  
Here, this → user
```

☑ 3. Explicit Binding (call, apply, bind)

call

```
function greet(city) {  
  console.log(this.name, city);  
}  
  
greet.call({ name: "Bob" }, "Delhi");
```

apply

```
greet.apply({ name: "Bob" }, ["Delhi"]);
```

Difference

- call → arguments individually
- apply → arguments as array

bind

```
const boundFn = greet.bind({ name: "Bob" });  
boundFn("Delhi");
```

- Does NOT invoke immediately
- Returns a new function
- Permanently binds this

☑ 4. new Binding

```
function Person(name) {  
  this.name = name;  
}  
  
const p = new Person("Alice");
```

What new does internally:

- Creates empty object {}
- Sets prototype
- Binds this to new object
- Returns object

20) Object in JS

Everything in JS (except primitives) is an object. An object consists of:

- Properties (key → value)
- An internal `[[Prototype]]` pointer

```
const obj = { a: 1 };  
  
/// internally  
obj = {  
  a: 1,  
  [[Prototype]] → Object.prototype  
}
```

Prototypal Inheritance

Objects inherit properties from other objects through a prototype chain.

```
const animal = {  
  eats: true,  
};
```

```
const dog = {
  barks: true,
};

dog.__proto__ = animal;
console.log(dog.eats); // true

/// explanation
JS lookup:

- dog → no eats
- animal → found
stop

/// Prototype Chain:
dog → animal → Object.prototype → null
```

21) __proto__ vs prototype

__proto__

- `__proto__` is an **accessor property** that exposes an object's internal `[[Prototype]]`.
- It allows JavaScript to **look up properties and methods** that are not found directly on the object itself.
- Exists on every object
- Points to the object's internal `[[Prototype]]`
- Used for lookup

Prototype Lookup

When you access a property on an object:

1. JavaScript first looks on the **object itself**.
2. If not found, it looks at the object's `__proto__`.
3. This continues up the **prototype chain** until:
 - The property is found, or
 - The chain ends at `null`.

Example

```
const arr = [];

arr.__proto__ === Array.prototype; // true
Array.prototype.__proto__ === Object.prototype; // true
Object.prototype.__proto__ === null; // true
```

```
// explanation
arr does not directly contain array methods like push.
JavaScript finds them via arr.__proto__ → Array.prototype.
```

prototype

- **prototype** is a property of **constructor functions**.
- It defines the properties and methods that should be **shared** by all instances created from that constructor.
- Methods placed on **prototype** are not duplicated for each object — they are shared via the prototype chain.

Example

```
function Person() {}

Person.prototype.sayHi = function () {
  console.log("Hi");
};

// When an object is created using new:
const p = new Person();

//Behind the scenes:
p.__proto__ === Person.prototype; // true

// This means:

p does not directly contain sayHi.

JavaScript finds sayHi via p.__proto__, which points to Person.prototype.
```

prototype is a property on constructor functions,
__proto__ is a pointer on objects created from them.

22) Constructor Functions

Before ES6 classes, **constructor functions** were used to create multiple objects with shared behavior.

Example

```
function Person(name) {
  this.name = name;
}
```

```
Person.prototype.sayHi = function () {  
  console.log(this.name);  
};  
  
const p1 = new Person("Alice");
```

What Happens Internally When `new` is Used

When `new Person("Alice")` is executed:

1. A new empty object is created.
2. `this` is bound to the new object.
3. The new object's `__proto__` is set to `Person.prototype`.
4. The object is returned automatically.

23) ES6 Classes

```
class Person {  
  constructor(name) {  
    this.name = name;  
  }  
  
  sayHi() {  
    console.log(this.name);  
  }  
}
```

Important Points

- Classes are **syntactic sugar over prototypes**.
- Methods defined in a class are placed on `Person.prototype`.
- Classes run in **strict mode automatically**.

Inheritance with Classes

```
class Employee extends Person {  
  constructor(name, id) {  
    super(name);  
    this.id = id;  
  }  
}
```

Important Points

- extends sets up the prototype chain.
- super() calls the parent class constructor.
- Employee.prototype inherits from Person.prototype.

24) Sparse array

In JavaScript, a sparse array is an array that has **holes** meaning some indices do not have any elements defined.

How to Create Sparse Arrays

Sparse arrays can be created in several ways:

1. Using array literals with missing values:

```
const sparseArr = [1, , 3]; // Hole at index 1
console.log(sparseArr.length); // Output: 3
console.log(Object.keys(sparseArr)); // Output: ['0', '2']
```

2. Using the Array() constructor with a single number argument:

```
const sparseArr = new Array(5); // Creates an array with 5 empty slots
console.log(sparseArr); // Output: [ <5 empty items> ]
console.log(sparseArr.length); // Output: 5
```

3. Assigning a value to an index beyond the current length:

```
const arr = [1, 2];
arr[10] = 100; // Creates holes from index 2 to 9
console.log(arr.length); // Output: 11
```

25) Array Methods: some, every, find, flat

☑ some() / every()

```
nums.some((n) => n > 2); // true
nums.every((n) => n > 0); // true

// Explanation
some() → returns true if at least one element satisfies the condition.
```

`every()` → returns **true** if all elements satisfy the condition.

Stops early, making them efficient.

☑ `find()`

```
nums.find(n => n > 1); // 2
```

// Explanation

Returns the first element that matches the condition.

Stops searching once a match is found.

☑ `flat()`

The `flat()` method is used to **flatten nested arrays** into a single array up to a specified depth.

What is Flattening?

Flattening is the process of converting a **nested array** into a **single-level array**.

Example

```
[1, [2, [3, 4]], 5];
```

Default Depth (Depth = 1)

If no argument is provided, `flat()` flattens the array by **one level**.

```
const arr = [1, [2, 3], [4, [5, 6]]];
```

```
console.log(arr.flat());
```

```
// Output: [1, 2, 3, 4, [5, 6]]
```

Specific Depth

You can pass an integer to specify **how many levels** deep the array should be flattened.

```
const arr = [1, [2, 3], [4, [5, 6]]];
```

```
console.log(arr.flat(2));
```

```
// Output: [1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6]
```

Deep Flattening (All Levels)

To completely flatten an array regardless of nesting depth, use Infinity.

```
const arr = [1, [2, [3, [4, [5]]]]];

console.log(arr.flat(Infinity));
// Output: [1, 2, 3, 4, 5]
```

Removing Empty Slots (Sparse Arrays)

The flat() method also removes empty slots (holes) from sparse arrays.

```
const sparseArr = [1, , 3, , 5];

console.log(sparseArr.flat());
// Output: [1, 3, 5]
```

26) Promise APIs

Summary Table

API	Resolves When	Rejects When	Use Case
Promise.all	All fulfilled	First rejection	All-or-nothing
Promise.allSettled	All settled	✗ Never	Report results
Promise.any	First fulfilled	All rejected	Fallback winner
Promise.race	First settled	First settled	Timeout / fastest

💧 1. Promise.all

🔗 Definition

Promise.all waits for **all promises to fulfill**.
If **any promise rejects**, the entire operation **rejects immediately**.

Syntax

```
Promise.all([p1, p2, p3]);
```

Promise.all – Rejection Behavior & Use Cases

Example: All Promises Fulfilled

```
const p1 = Promise.resolve(10);
const p2 = Promise.resolve(20);

Promise.all([p1, p2])
  .then((values) => console.log(values)) // [10, 20]
  .catch((err) => console.log(err));

/////////
✓ Fails fast – rejects immediately on the first rejection

✓ Other promises continue executing, but their results are ignored
```

Real-World Use Case

- ✓ Load multiple APIs that must all succeed

```
await Promise.all([
  fetchUser(),
  fetchPermissions(),
  fetchSettings()
]);

//////// Interview Trap

? Does Promise.all cancel other promises?

✗ No. JavaScript promises are not cancellable by default.
```

💧 2. Promise.allSettled

🔗 Definition

Waits until **all promises settle** (either fulfilled or rejected).

- ✓ Never rejects
- ✓ Returns the **status of each promise**

Syntax

```
Promise.allSettled([p1, p2]);
```

```
const p1 = Promise.resolve(10);
const p2 = Promise.reject("Error");

Promise.allSettled([p1, p2]).then((results) => {
  console.log(results);
});

// Output
[
  { status: "fulfilled", value: 10 },
  { status: "rejected", reason: "Error" },
];

// Interview Tip
Use Promise.allSettled when partial success is acceptable.
```

💧 3. Promise.any

🔗 Definition

Resolves as soon as any promise fulfills. Rejects only if all promises reject.

```
Promise.any([p1, p2]);
```

```
Promise.any([Promise.reject("A"), Promise.reject("B")]).catch((err) => {
  console.log(err);
});

// All Fail Case (IMPORTANT)
Promise.any([Promise.reject("A"), Promise.reject("B")]).catch((err) => {
  console.log(err);
});
// All Fail Case O/P
AggregateError: All promises were rejected
```

Interview Trap

? Difference between any and race?

- any → waits for first success
- race → waits for first settle

💧 3. Promise.race

🔗 Definition

Resolves or rejects with the **first settled promise** (fulfilled or rejected).

Syntax

```
Promise.race([p1, p2]);
```

```
const slow = new Promise((res) => setTimeout(() => res("slow"), 1000));
const fast = new Promise((res) => setTimeout(() => res("fast"), 100));

Promise.race([slow, fast]).then(console.log); // "fast"
```

27) Function Composition

Combining multiple functions so the output of one becomes the input of the next.

```
f(g(x))
```

```
const add2 = (x) => x + 2;
const multiply3 = (x) => x * 3;

const result = multiply3(add2(5)); // 21
```

Composition vs Chaining

Chaining

```
arr.map().filter().reduce();
```

Composition

```
const process = compose(reduceFn, filterFn, mapFn);
```

✓ Composition works for any functions, not just arrays.

Feature	Function Composition	Method Chaining
Paradigm	Functional Programming	Object-Oriented Programming

Feature	Function Composition	Method Chaining
Mechanism	Output of one function is input to the next	Methods are called sequentially on the same object
State	Uses immutable data and pure functions	Operates on and may modify mutable object state
Output	Creates a new function	Operates on the initial object instance

28) DOM Tree (Document Object Model)

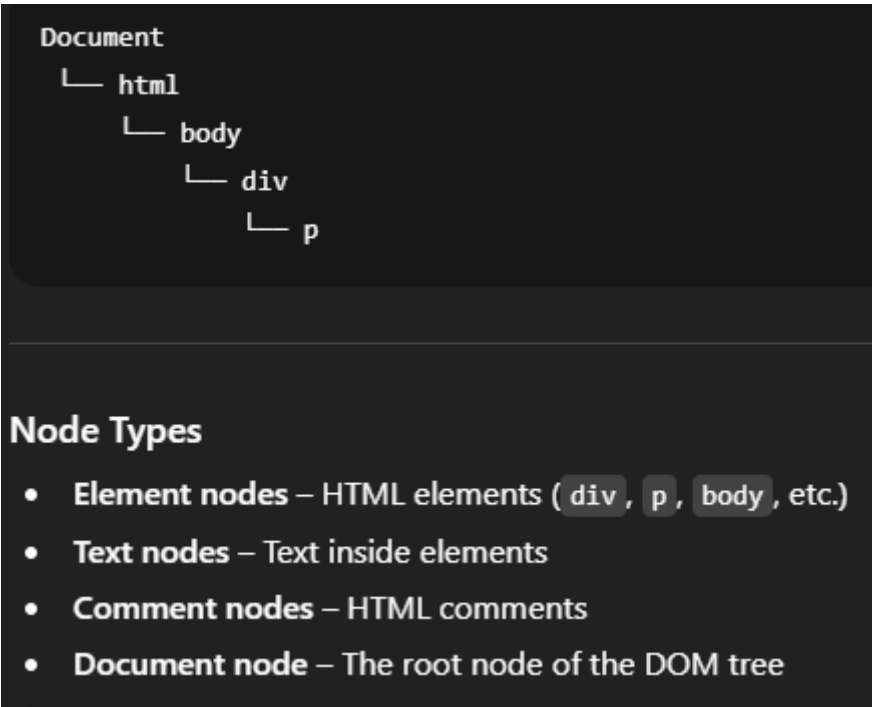
What is the DOM?

The **DOM (Document Object Model)** is a **tree representation** of an HTML document where:

- Each HTML element is represented as a **node**
- The browser converts **HTML** → **DOM**
- JavaScript interacts with the webpage through the **DOM**

Example HTML

```
<body>
  <div>
    <p>Hello</p>
  </div>
</body>
```



DOM Tree Representation

29) DOM Manipulation in JavaScript

DOM manipulation is the process of using **JavaScript** to dynamically interact with and modify the **structure**, **style**, and **content** of a web page **after it has loaded**.

This allows developers to build **interactive and dynamic user experiences** without reloading the entire page.

How the DOM Works

- The **DOM (Document Object Model)** represents an HTML document as a **tree of objects (nodes)**.
- Each part of the document is a node, including:
 - HTML elements
 - Attributes
 - Text content
- Each node has its own **properties** and **methods** that JavaScript can access and manipulate.

Key DOM Manipulation Techniques

1. Selecting Elements

You must first access the desired element(s) using methods available on the **document** object.

- **document.getElementById('idName')**
Selects a single element by its unique ID.
Most efficient for unique elements.
 - **document.querySelector('selector')**
Selects the **first** element that matches a CSS selector
(e.g., `#id`, `.class`, `div p`).
 - **document.querySelectorAll('selector')**
Selects **all** matching elements and returns a **NodeList**.
 - **document.getElementsByClassName('className')**
Returns an **HTMLCollection** of elements with the specified class name.
 - **document.getElementsByTagName('tagName')**
Returns an **HTMLCollection** of elements with the given tag name
(e.g., `p`, `div`).
-

2. Modifying Content and Attributes

Once an element is selected, you can update its content or attributes.

- **element.innerHTML = 'New Content'**
Gets or sets HTML content inside an element.
⚠ Use cautiously with untrusted input due to security risks.

- `element.textContent = 'New Text'`
Gets or sets text content only (ignores HTML).
 - `element.setAttribute('attributeName', 'value')`
Sets an attribute value (e.g., `src`, `href`).
 - `element.removeAttribute('attributeName')`
Removes an attribute from the element.
-

3. Modifying Styles and Classes

Using CSS classes is recommended, but inline styles can also be applied.

- `element.style.propertyName = 'value'`
Sets inline styles using camelCase
(e.g., `backgroundColor`).
 - `element.classList.add('className')`
Adds a class.
 - `element.classList.remove('className')`
Removes a class.
 - `element.classList.toggle('className')`
Toggles a class on or off.
-

4. Creating and Removing Elements

You can dynamically manage page structure.

- `document.createElement('tagName')`
Creates a new element in memory.
 - `parentNode.appendChild(childNode)`
Appends a child element to a parent.
 - `element.remove()`
Removes the element from the DOM.
 - `parentNode.removeChild(childNode)`
Removes a specific child from its parent.
-

5. Event Handling

JavaScript can respond to user interactions through event listeners.

- `element.addEventListener('event', functionName)`
Attaches an event listener to an element.

Common events:

- `click`
- `input`
- `keydown`
- `submit`

30)Event Capturing & Bubbling

Event Flow Phases

When an event occurs in the DOM, it passes through **three phases**:

1. Capturing Phase (Top → Target)

- The event travels from the `document` down to the target element.
- Used when you want to handle events **before** they reach the target.

2. Target Phase

- The event reaches the actual element that triggered it.

3. Bubbling Phase (Target → Top)

- The event bubbles back up from the target element to the `document`.
- Most event handling in JavaScript relies on this phase.

Event Listener Syntax

```
element.addEventListener("click", handler, true); // Capturing phase
element.addEventListener("click", handler, false); // Bubbling phase
```

Event Listener Phase Control

- The **third parameter** of `addEventListener` determines the event phase:
 - `true` → **Capturing phase**
 - `false` → **Bubbling phase**

Default Behavior

- **✓ Bubbling is enabled by default**
- **✗ Capturing is disabled** unless explicitly set to `true`

Why This Matters

- **Bubbling** enables patterns like **event delegation**, which improves performance.
- **Capturing** is useful when you need to **intercept events** before child elements handle them.
- Understanding both phases helps you control how events **propagate through the DOM**.

31) preventDefault & stopPropagation

preventDefault

- Stops the **default browser behavior** associated with an event.
- Commonly used with form submissions, links, and context menus.

```
form.addEventListener("submit", (e) => {  
  e.preventDefault();  
});
```

stopPropagation

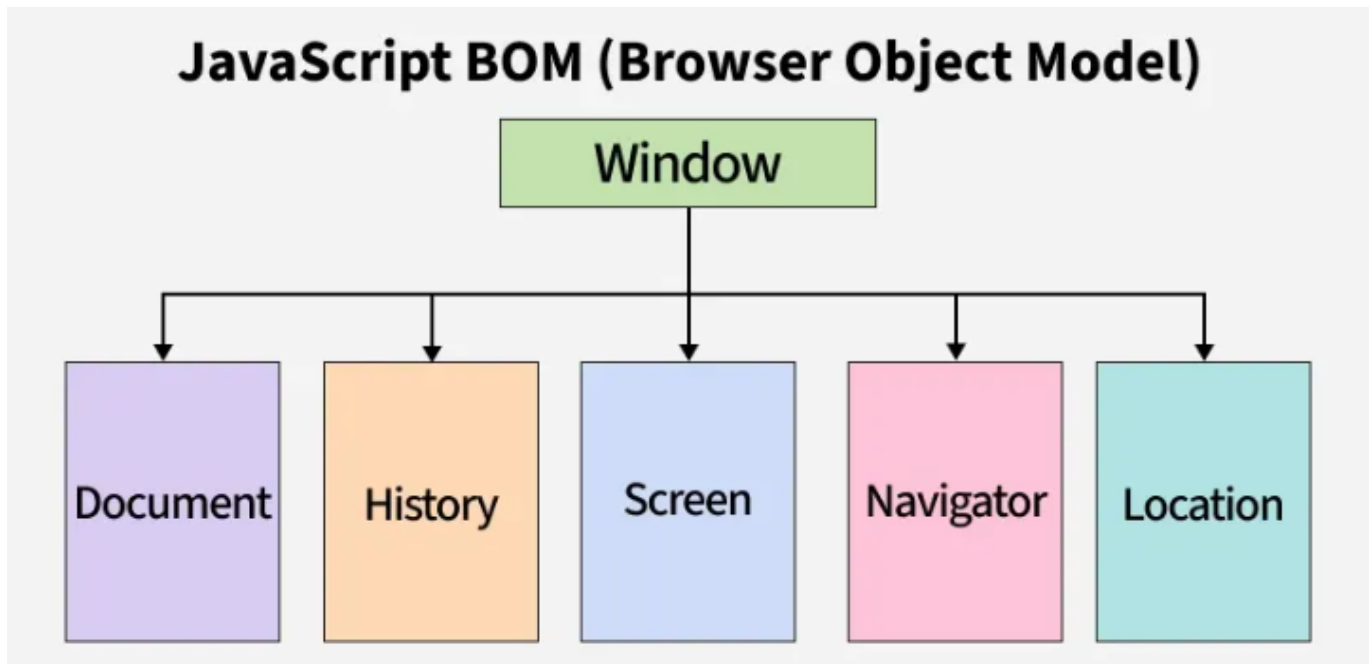
- Stops the event from propagating further through the DOM.
- Prevents both bubbling and capturing beyond the current element.

```
e.stopPropagation();
```

Key Difference

- `preventDefault()` → stops the browser's default action.
- `stopPropagation()` → stops the event from moving through the DOM.

32) BOM (Browser Object Model)



The **Browser Object Model (BOM)** is a collection of objects that allows JavaScript to interact with the **browser and its environment**, beyond just the webpage content.

Unlike the **DOM (Document Object Model)**, which focuses on page structure and content, the BOM deals with everything **outside the page**, such as the browser window, URL, history, and screen.

Key BOM Objects

window

- The **global object** representing the browser window.
 - Provides methods and properties such as:
 - `alert()`, `prompt()`, `confirm()`
 - `setTimeout()`, `setInterval()`
 - Window size: `innerHeight`, `innerWidth`
-

navigator

- Contains information about the browser and system.
 - Examples:
 - Browser name
 - Version
 - Operating system
-

location

- Represents the current URL.
- Used for redirection and URL manipulation.
- Common methods:
 - `location.assign()`
 - `location.replace()`

- `location.href`
-

history

- Provides access to the browser's session history.
 - Allows navigation through visited pages:
 - `history.back()`
 - `history.forward()`
 - `history.go()`
-

screen

- Contains information about the user's screen.
 - Examples:
 - `screen.width`
 - `screen.height`
-

console

- Used for debugging and logging.
 - Common methods:
 - `console.log()`
 - `console.warn()`
 - `console.error()`
-

Examples

```
// Display an alert dialog (window.alert() is implied)
alert("Hello, world!");

// Log browser information to the console (window.navigator is implied)
console.log(navigator.userAgent);

// Redirect the user to a different URL (window.location is implied)
location.href = "https://www.example.com";
```

Summary

- **DOM** → Interacts with webpage content
- **BOM** → Interacts with the browser environment
- The **window** object acts as the root of the BOM

33) Cookies

Cookies & the Secure Flag

Cookies are small **key-value pairs** stored in the browser and are **automatically sent with HTTP requests** to the server.

They are commonly used for:

- Authentication (sessions)
- Personalization
- Tracking
- CSRF protection

1) Secure Cookie

The **Secure** flag ensures that a cookie is **only sent over HTTPS connections**.

Example

```
Set-Cookie: token=abc; Secure;
```

Why It Matters

Without Secure

- Cookie can be sent over **HTTP**
- Vulnerable to **Man-in-the-Middle (MITM)** attacks
- Susceptible to **packet sniffing**

With Secure

- ✓ Cookie is **never sent over plain HTTP**
- ✓ Protects against **interception**
- ✓ Enhances **overall security**

2) HttpOnly Cookie

🔒 What is HttpOnly?

The **HttpOnly** flag prevents **JavaScript access** to cookies.

```
Set-Cookie: sessionId=abc; HttpOnly;
```

What It Blocks

- ✗ `document.cookie`

- ❌ XSS-based token theft
-

Why It Matters

If an attacker injects malicious JavaScript:

```
document.cookie; // ❌ blocked
```

HttpOnly cookies cannot be accessed via JavaScript, which significantly reduces the risk of session hijacking via XSS attacks.

3) SameSite Cookie

🔗 What is SameSite?

The **SameSite** attribute controls whether cookies are sent with **cross-site requests**.

- Helps prevent **CSRF (Cross-Site Request Forgery)** attacks

```
Set-Cookie: token=abc; SameSite=Strict;
```

SameSite Cookie Values

☒ SameSite=Strict

```
SameSite=Strict
```

Behavior

- ✔️ Cookie sent **only for same-site navigation**
 - ❌ Not sent on **cross-site requests** (even link clicks)
-

Pros

- 🛡️ **Best security**
-

Cons

- ❌ May break **user experience** (e.g., external links, redirects)

☒ SameSite=Lax (DEFAULT)

```
SameSite=Lax
```

Behavior

- ✓ Cookie sent for:
 - Same-site requests
 - Top-level navigation (**GET** requests)
- ✗ Not sent for:
 - Cross-site **POST** requests
 - AJAX requests

Pros

- ✓ Good balance of security & usability
- ✓ Default behavior in modern browsers

☒ SameSite=None

```
SameSite=None; Secure
```

Behavior

- ✓ Cookie sent in **all contexts**
- ✗ **Least secure**

Required For

- Third-party cookies
- Embedded iframes
- Cross-domain authentication

⚠ **Must be used with **Secure****, otherwise browsers will block it.

34) Tree Shaking

🌳 Tree Shaking

Tree shaking is a **build-time optimization** technique that removes **unused (dead) code** from the final JavaScript bundle.

The term comes from the idea of **shaking a tree to remove dead leaves** — only the code that is actually used remains.

What Tree Shaking Does

- Eliminates unused modules, functions, or components
 - Produces **smaller bundle sizes**
 - Results in **faster load times**
 - Improves overall **application performance** and **user experience**
-

Tree Shaking in React & JavaScript

Tree shaking is commonly used in **React applications** and modern JavaScript projects during the **build process** (using tools like Webpack, Rollup, or Vite).

It works by analyzing imports and exports to determine which pieces of code are never used and safely removing them.

Key Points

- ✓ Happens at **build time**, not runtime
 - ✓ Requires **ES Modules (import / export)**
 - ✓ Relies on **static analysis**
 - ✓ Removes dead code automatically
-

Summary

Tree shaking helps keep JavaScript applications **lean, fast, and efficient** by ensuring only the code that is actually used makes it into the final bundle.

Why ES Modules (ESM) Are Required

Tree shaking relies on **ES Modules (import / export)** because they are:

- **Statically analyzable**
- Have a fixed structure that bundlers can understand at build time

```
// ES Modules (tree-shakable)
import { add } from "./math.js";
```

Summary

- Tree shaking removes **unused code**
- Happens at **build time**

- Requires **ES Modules**

Basic Example

math.js

```
export function add(a, b) {  
  return a + b;  
}  
  
export function subtract(a, b) {  
  return a - b;  
}
```

app.js

```
import { add } from "./math.js";  
  
add(2, 3);
```

Result After Tree Shaking

```
function add(a, b) {  
  return a + b;  
}  
  
add(2, 3);
```

- ✓ subtract is completely removed from the bundle
- ✓ Improves performance and bundle size

35) SOLID Principles in JavaScript

SOLID is a set of five design principles that help you write code that is:

- ✓ Maintainable
- ✓ Scalable
- ✓ Testable
- ✓ Readable

These principles apply even in **dynamic languages like JavaScript**.

S — Single Responsibility Principle (SRP)

Definition

A class or module should have **only one reason to change**.

In other words, a unit of code should handle **one responsibility only**.

Bad Example

```
class UserService {
  createUser(data) {
    // create user
  }

  sendEmail(user) {
    // send email
  }

  logUser(user) {
    console.log(user);
  }
}
```

Problems

- Too many responsibilities in a single class:
 - Business logic
 - Email handling
 - Logging
- A change in **any one concern** forces modification of the **same class**, increasing coupling and reducing maintainability.

Good Example

```
class UserService {
  createUser(data) {}
}

class EmailService {
  sendEmail(user) {}
}

class Logger {
  log(data) {}
}
```

Benefits

- Each class has a **single responsibility**
- Easier to **test, maintain**, and **extend**
- Changes in email or logging do **not** affect user creation logic

O — Open/Closed Principle (OCP)

🔗 Definition

Software entities (classes, modules, functions) should be **open for extension** but **closed for modification**.

✗ Bad Example

```
function calculateDiscount(type, price) {  
  if (type === "student") return price * 0.8;  
  if (type === "senior") return price * 0.7;  
}
```

Problems

- Adding a new discount requires **modifying existing code**
- Increases the **risk of regressions**
- **Violates the Open/Closed Principle (OCP)**

☑ Good Example (Strategy Pattern)

```
class DiscountStrategy {  
  apply(price) {}  
}  
  
class StudentDiscount extends DiscountStrategy {  
  apply(price) {  
    return price * 0.8;  
  }  
}  
  
class SeniorDiscount extends DiscountStrategy {  
  apply(price) {  
    return price * 0.7;  
  }  
}
```

Benefits

- New discounts can be added by creating **new classes**
- Existing code remains **unchanged**
- Easier to **test, maintain**, and **extend**

L — Liskov Substitution Principle (LSP)

The **Liskov Substitution Principle (LSP)** states that if you have a **base class (superclass)** and a **derived class (subclass)**, you should be able to replace the base class with the subclass **without breaking the correctness or expected behavior** of the program.

In simple terms:

👉 **Subclasses must be usable wherever their parent class is expected.**

✗ Bad Example (Violates LSP)

```
class Bird {  
    fly() {}  
}  
  
class Penguin extends Bird {  
    fly() {  
        throw new Error("Cannot fly");  
    }  
}
```

Problem

- **Bird** implies that all birds can fly.
- **Penguin** breaks this expectation.
- Code written to work with **Bird** fails when given a **Penguin**.

✗ Breaks **substitutability** and **expected behavior**, violating the Liskov Substitution Principle.

☑ Good Example (Follows LSP)

```
class Bird {}  
  
class FlyingBird extends Bird {  
    fly() {}  
}  
  
class Penguin extends Bird {  
    swim() {}  
}
```

Why This Works

- No false assumptions are made in the base class.
- Subclasses only add behavior they can actually support.
- Each subtype can safely replace its parent without breaking the program.

🔗 Interview Answer (LSP)

If a subclass changes or breaks the expected behavior of its parent class, it violates the Liskov Substitution Principle.

I — Interface Segregation Principle (ISP)

🔗 Definition

Clients should **not be forced to depend on methods they do not use**.

✗ Bad Example

```
class Worker {  
    work() {}  
    eat() {}  
}
```

Problem

- Every client of `Worker` is forced to depend on **both** `work()` and `eat()`
- Not all workers require both behaviors
- Creates **unnecessary dependencies**
- Violates the **Interface Segregation Principle (ISP)** by coupling unrelated functionality

☑ Good Example (Follows ISP)

```
class Workable {  
    work() {}  
}  
  
class Eatable {  
    eat() {}  
}
```

Why This Works

- Responsibilities are segregated into **small, focused abstractions**
 - Clients depend **only on what they actually use**
 - Avoids forcing unnecessary methods on consumers
 - Improves **flexibility, maintainability, and testability**
-

🔗 Interview Answer (ISP)

The Interface Segregation Principle states that clients should not be forced to depend on methods they do not use. Smaller, focused interfaces lead to more flexible and maintainable code.

D — Dependency Inversion Principle (DIP)

Definition

High-level modules should **not depend on low-level modules**.
Both should depend on **abstractions**.

Bad Example

```
class PaymentService {  
  constructor() {  
    this.processor = new Stripe();  
  }  
}
```

Problems

- High-level `PaymentService` is **tightly coupled** to the `Stripe` implementation
- Hard to **test** because dependencies cannot be easily mocked
- Difficult to **replace or switch** payment providers without modifying existing code

Good Example

```
class PaymentService {  
  constructor(processor) {  
    this.processor = processor;  
  }  
}
```

Why This Is Better

- Depends on an **abstraction**, not a concrete implementation
 - Payment processors can be **swapped easily**
(Stripe, PayPal, Mock, etc.)
 - Improves **testability**, **flexibility**, and **extensibility**
-

36) Storage is JS

Web Storage

Web Storage allows you to store **key-value pairs** in the browser.

Key Characteristics

- Data is stored as **strings**
 - Storage size $\approx$ **5–10 MB**
 - Data is **not sent to the server** (unlike cookies)
 - Faster and more secure for client-side storage
-

2 localStorage

◇ Key Features

- Data **persists even after the browser is closed**
- Shared across **all tabs/windows** of the same origin
- **No expiration time**

◇ Example

```
// Set an item
localStorage.setItem("user", "John");

// Get an item
const user = localStorage.getItem("user");

// Remove a specific item
localStorage.removeItem("user");

// Clear all localStorage data
localStorage.clear();
```

3 sessionStorage

◇ Key Features

- Data exists **only for the current tab**
 - Cleared when the **tab or browser is closed**
 - **Not shared** across tabs or windows
 - Stores data as **key-value pairs (strings only)**
-

◇ Example

```
// Set an item
sessionStorage.setItem("token", "abc123");

// Get an item
const token = sessionStorage.getItem("token");
```

```
// Remove a specific item
localStorage.removeItem("token");

// Clear all localStorage data
localStorage.clear();
```

localStorage vs Cookies

Feature	localStorage	Cookies
Sent with request	☒ No	☐ Yes
Size	Larger (≈ 5–10 MB)	Smaller (≈ 4 KB)
Security	Lower	Higher (can use <code>HttpOnly</code> , <code>Secure</code>)

localStorage vs sessionStorage

Feature	localStorage	sessionStorage
Lifetime	Permanent (until manually cleared)	Tab session only
Shared across tabs	☒ Yes (same origin)	☒ No
Storage limit	~5–10 MB	~5 MB
Auto expiration	☒ No	☐ Yes (on tab/browser close)
Use case	Preferences, auth flags	Temporary / session-based data

Key Takeaways

- ☒ **localStorage** → persistent storage (data remains even after browser close)
- ☒ **sessionStorage** → tab-level storage (cleared when tab closes)
- ☒ Web Storage stores **only strings** → use `JSON.stringify()` / `JSON.parse()`
- ☒ **Avoid storing sensitive data** (tokens, passwords) in localStorage or sessionStorage

37) Performance optimization

- `Code splitting and Lazy loading`
- `Debounce`
- `Throttle`

What is `Code Splitting`?

Code splitting breaks down a large JavaScript bundle into **smaller chunks**, so only the required code is loaded when needed.

This reduces the **initial bundle size** and improves application performance.

What is **Lazy Loading**?

Lazy loading means loading resources **only when they are required**, instead of loading everything upfront.

- ✓ Faster initial load
 - ✓ Reduced bandwidth usage
 - ✓ Better user experience
-

Why It Matters (Example)

Consider a React app with the following pages:

- Login
- Dashboard
- Listing

✗ Without code splitting

All pages are bundled into one large JS file.

Even when the user visits only the Login page, code for Dashboard and Listing is loaded unnecessarily.

☑ With code splitting & lazy loading

Only the Login page code loads initially.

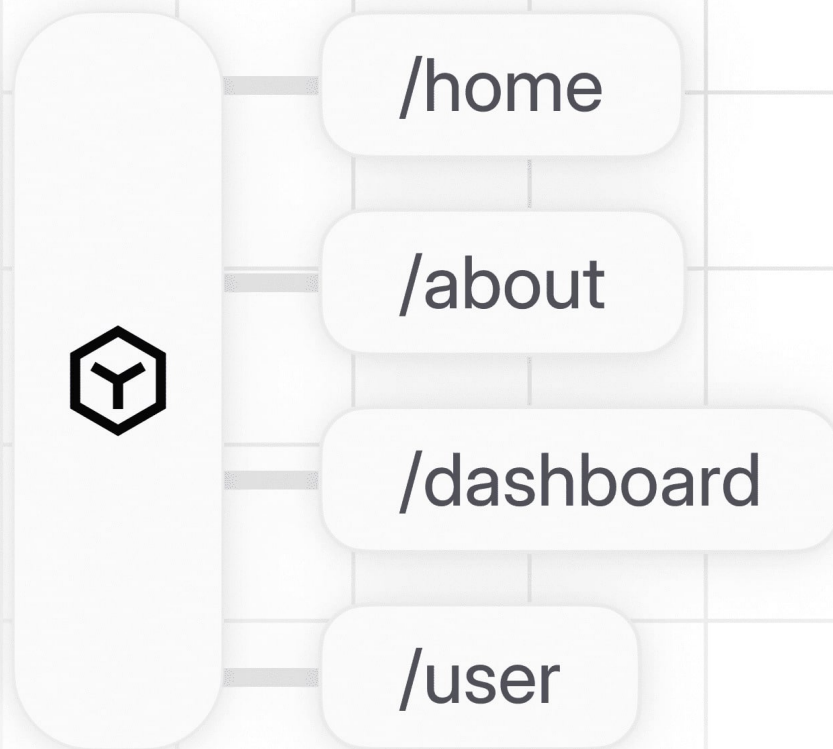
Dashboard and Listing pages are loaded **on demand** when the user navigates to them.

Dynamic Import in JavaScript

React uses **dynamic import()** for code splitting.

```
import("./math").then((math) => {  
  console.log(math.add(1, 2));  
});  
  
// explanation  
import() returns a Promise  
The module is loaded only when needed  
Enables lazy loading at runtime
```

Route-Based Code Splitting (Recommended First Step)



Route-based code splitting

greatfrontend.com

Route-based code splitting loads JavaScript code **per route**, instead of bundling the entire app into one file.

```
import { Suspense, lazy } from "react";
import { BrowserRouter as Router, Routes, Route } from "react-router-dom";

const Login = lazy(() => import("./Login"));
const Dashboard = lazy(() => import("./Dashboard"));

const App = () => (
  <Router>
    <Suspense>
      <Routes>
        <Route path="/" element={<Login />} />
        <Route path="/about" element={<Dashboard />} />
      </Routes>
    </Suspense>
  </Router>
);
```

```
</Router>  
);
```

Why It's Effective

- Routes are usually **clearly separated**
- Can lead to **maximum bundle size reduction**
- Improves **initial load performance**

Caution ⚠

- If multiple routes share a lot of logic, it can cause **code duplication** across bundles
 - Shared logic should be extracted into **common/shared chunks**
- ✓ Best when routes are **distinct**
- ✗ Be careful of duplicated code in lazy-loaded routes
-

Component-Based Code Splitting



<Modal />

<Toast />

Component-based code splitting



GreatFrontEnd

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Component-based code splitting provides **more granular control** over what gets loaded and when.

```
import { useState, lazy, Suspense } from "react";

const Modal = lazy(() => import("./Modal"));

function App() {
  const [showModal, setShowModal] = useState(false);

  const openModal = () => {
    setShowModal(true);
  };

  const closeModal = () => {
    setShowModal(false);
  };
}
```

```
return (  
  <div>  
    <button onClick={openModal}>Open Modal</button>  
    {showModal && (  
      <Suspense fallback={<div>Loading Modal...</div>}>  
        <Modal onClose={closeModal} />  
      </Suspense>  
    )}  
  </div>  
}  
  
export default App;
```

In this example, the **Modal** component is lazily loaded using `React.lazy()` and a **dynamic import**.

- The modal is **conditionally rendered** based on the `showModal` state.
- The `openModal` and `closeModal` functions toggle this state.
- The `Suspense` component displays a **loading indicator** while the modal is being loaded asynchronously.

Why This Improves Performance

- The modal code is loaded **only when the user clicks** the **Open Modal** button.
- Heavy or rarely used components (such as text editors or complex modals) are **not included in the initial bundle**.
- This reduces the **initial load time** and improves overall application performance.

When to Lazy Load Components

Ideal candidates:

- Large components with heavy logic or assets
- Conditional components (modals, charts, dialogs)
- Secondary or non-essential features

Avoid lazy loading:

- Headers
- Core layout
- Main content
- Critical dependencies

Why Component-Based Splitting Is Powerful

- Enables **fine-grained performance control**
- Loads **only what the user actually needs**
- Optimizes both **initial render** and **runtime performance**

⚠ Balance is key:

- Lazy load too much → delayed UI
 - Lazy load too little → large initial bundle
-

Key Takeaway

- **Code splitting** → reduces bundle size
- **Lazy loading** → loads code on demand
- **Route-based splitting** → best starting point
- **Component-based splitting** → advanced optimization
- Always balance **performance** with **user experience**

IMPORTANT FUNCTION / CONCEPT IMPLEMENTATION

- `once(fn)`
- `debounce(fn)`
- `throttle(fn)`
- `flattenArray()`
- `deepClone()`
- `memoize(fn)`
- `closures`

38) `once(fn)` function

In JavaScript, a `once` function is a utility that creates a new version of a function that can only be executed a single time. Subsequent calls to the resulting function return the value from the first invocation, ensuring logic runs just once

```
function once(fn) {  
  // This variable tracks whether 'fn' has already been called  
  let called = false;  
  // This variable stores the result of the first function call  
  let result;  
  
  return function (...args) {  
    // Check if the function has NOT been called yet  
    if (!called) {  
      // Mark the function as called so it won't run again  
      called = true;  
      // Call the original function 'fn'  
      // - 'this' preserves the calling context  
      // - 'args' passes all received arguments  
      result = fn.apply(this, args);  
    }  
    // Always return the stored result  
    // (first call computes it, later calls reuse it)  
  }  
}
```

```
    return result;
  };
}
```

```
function add(a, b) {
  console.log("Function executed");
  return a + b;
}

// Wrap the function so it can only run once
const addOnce = once(add);

console.log(addOnce(2, 3)); // Logs: "Function executed", then 5
console.log(addOnce(10, 20)); // No log, still returns 5
console.log(addOnce(100, 200)); // Still returns 5
```

39) flattenArray()

Flattening is the process of converting a **nested array** into a **single-level array**.

Using REDUCE function

```
// Function to flatten a nested array into a single-level array
function flattenArray(arr) {
  // reduce() iterates over each element in the array
  return arr.reduce((acc, curr) => {
    // acc → accumulator that holds the flattened result so far
    // curr → current element being processed

    // Check if the current element is an array
    if (Array.isArray(curr)) {
      // If yes, recursively flatten it and concatenate the result
      return acc.concat(flattenArray(curr));
    } else {
      // If not an array, directly add the value to the accumulator
      return acc.concat(curr);
    }
  }, []); // Initial accumulator is an empty array
}

// ☒ Example usage
const nestedArray = [1, [2, [3, 4]], 5];

const result = flattenArray(nestedArray);
console.log(result); // [1, 2, 3, 4, 5]
```